

LECTURE 2
Bit Hacks

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C Bitwise Operators

Operator	Description
&	AND
	OR
^	XOR (exclusive OR)
~	NOT (one's complement)
<<	shift left
>>	shift right

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Examples (8-bit word)

A = 0b10110011

B = 0b01101001

A & B = 0b00100001

A | B = 0b11111011

A ^ B = 0b11011010

~A = 0b01001100

A >> 3 = 0b00010110

A << 2 = 0b11001100

C Bitwise Operators

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The prefix **0b** designates a Boolean constant.

Examples (8-bit word)

A = 0b10110011

B = 0b01101001

A & B = 0b00100001

A | B = 0b11111011

A ^ B = 0b11011010

~A = 0b01001100

A >> 3 = 0b00010110

A << 2 = 0b11001100

Integer Representation

Let $\mathbf{x} = \langle x_{w-1}x_{w-2}\dots x_0 \rangle$ be a w -bit computer word. The **unsigned integer** value stored in $\mathbf{x}$ is

$$x = \sum_{k=0}^{w-1} x_k 2^k .$$

For example, the 8-bit word **0b01101010** represents the unsigned value **106** = 2 + 8 + 32 + 64.

The **signed integer** (**two's complement**) value stored in $\mathbf{x}$ is

$$x = \left(\sum_{k=0}^{w-2} x_k 2^k \right) - x_{w-1} 2^{w-1} .$$

For example, the 8-bit word **0b10010110** represents the signed value **-106** = 2 + 4 + 16 - 128.

Elementary Notions

Simple properties

- Add, subtract, multiply, and divide binary numbers.
- Hexadecimal/binary conversion.
- A word with all **0** bits equals **0**.
- A word with all **1** bits equals **-1**.
- $\sim x + x = -1$ and $-x = \sim x + 1$.
- Etc.

Masking operations

- Set the **k**th bit.
- Clear the **k**th bit.
- Toggle the **k**th bit.
- Extract a bit field.
- Set a bit field.

Example

8-bit word: **abc**def**gh**
8-bit mask: **100**111**01**
word & mask: **a00**def**0h**

POWERS OF 2



Least-Significant 1

Problem

Compute the mask of the least-significant **1** in word **x**.
Equivalently, what is the largest power of **2** that divides **x**?

```
r = x & (-x);
```

Example

x	0010000001010000
-x	1101111110110000
x & (-x)	000000000000 1 0000

Why it works

- $-x = \sim x + 1$.

Notation: $\lg r = \log_2 r$

Question

How do you find the index of the bit, i.e., $\lg r$?

Is an Integer a Power of 2?

Problem

Is $x = 2^k$ for some integer k ?

$$x == x \& -x$$

Example

x	00001000	00101000
$-x$	11111000	11011000
$x \& -x$	00001000	00001000
$x == x \& -x$	00000001	00000000

Bug!

What if $x = 0$?

$$(x \neq 0) \&\& (x == x \& -x)$$

Count Trailing Zeros

Problem

Compute $\lg x$, where x is a power of 2.

```
const uint64_t deBruijn = 0x022fdd63cc95386d;
const int convert[64] = {
    0,  1,  2, 53,  3,  7, 54, 27,
    4, 38, 41,  8, 34, 55, 48, 28,
    62,  5, 39, 46, 44, 42, 22,  9,
    24, 35, 59, 56, 49, 18, 29, 11,
    63, 52,  6, 26, 37, 40, 33, 47,
    61, 45, 43, 21, 23, 58, 17, 10,
    51, 25, 36, 32, 60, 20, 57, 16,
    50, 31, 19, 15, 30, 14, 13, 12
};
r = convert[(x * deBruijn) >> 58];
```

Count Trailing 0's of a Power of 2

Why it works

A deBruijn sequence s of length 2^k is a cyclic 0-1 sequence such that each of the 2^k 0-1 strings of length k occurs exactly once as a substring of s .

Example: $k=3$

	00011101
0	00011101
1	00111010
2	01110100
3	11101000
4	11010001
5	10100011
6	01000111
7	10001110

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	00011101
0	00011101
1	00111010
2	01110100
3	11101000
4	11010001
5	10100011
6	01000111
7	10001110

```
const int convert[8]
= {0,1,6,2,7,5,4,3};
```

Count Trailing 0's of a Power of 2

Why it works

A deBruijn sequence s of length 2^k is a cyclic 0-1 sequence such that each of the 2^k 0-1 strings of length k occurs exactly once as a substring of s .

$0b00011101 * 2^4 \Rightarrow 0b11010000$
 $0b11010000 \gg 5 \Rightarrow 110 \Rightarrow 6$
 $\text{convert}[6] \Rightarrow 4$

Hardware instruction

```
int __builtin_ctz(int x)
```

Example: $k=3$

	00011101
0	00011101
1	00111010
2	01110100
3	11101000
4	11010000
5	10100000
6	01000000
7	10000000

```
const int convert[8]  
= {0,1,6,2,7,5,4,3};
```

Round up to a Power of 2

Problem

Compute $2^{\lceil \lg n \rceil}$

Round up to a Power of 2

Problem

Compute $2^{\lceil \lg n \rceil}$

```
uint64_t n;  
:  
--n;  
n |= n >> 1;  
n |= n >> 2;  
n |= n >> 4;  
n |= n >> 8;  
n |= n >> 16;  
n |= n >> 32;  
++n;
```

Example

0010000001010000

Round up to a Power of 2

Problem

Compute $2^{\lceil \lg n \rceil}$

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uint64_t n;  
:  
--n;  
n |= n >> 1;  
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n |= n >> 8;  
n |= n >> 16;  
n |= n >> 32;  
++n;
```

Example

0010000001010000
0010000001001111

Round up to a Power of 2

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:  
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Example

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0011000001101111
0011110001111111

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0011111111111111

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```

Example

0010000001010000
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Example

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Example

0010000001010000
0010000001001111
0011000001101111
0011110001111111
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0100000000000000

Round up to a Power of 2

Problem

Compute $2^{\lceil \lg n \rceil}$

```
uint64_t n;  
:  
--n;  
n |= n >> 1;  
n |= n >> 2;  
n |= n >> 4;  
n |= n >> 8;  
n |= n >> 16;  
n |= n >> 32;  
++n;
```

Example

0010000001010000
0010000001001111
0011000001101111
0011110001111111
0011111111111111
0100000000000000

Why decrement?

To handle the boundary case when n is a power of 2.

Round up to a Power of 2

Problem

Compute $2^{\lceil \lg n \rceil}$

```
uint64_t n;
```

```
⋮
```

```
--n;
```

```
n |= n >> 1;
```

```
n |= n >> 2;
```

```
n |= n >> 4;
```

```
n |= n >> 8;
```

```
n |= n >> 16;
```

```
n |= n >> 32;
```

```
++n;
```

Bit $\lceil \lg n \rceil - 1$ must be set

Example

0010000001010000

0010000001001111

0011000001101111

0011110001111111

0011111111111111

0100000000000000

Set bit $\lceil \lg n \rceil$

Populate all the bits to the right with **1**

SWAPPING



Ordinary Swap

Problem

Swap two integers **x** and **y**.

Ordinary Swap

Problem

Swap two integers **x** and **y**.

```
t = x;  
x = y;  
y = t;
```

Example

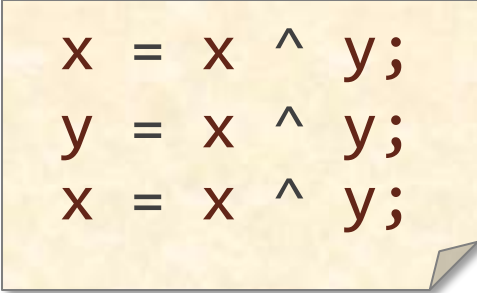
x	10111101	10111101	00101110	10111101
y	00101110	00101110	00101110	00101110
t		10111101	10111101	10111101



No-Temp Swap

Problem

Swap **x** and **y** without using a temporary.



```
x = x ^ y;  
y = x ^ y;  
x = x ^ y;
```

No-Temp Swap

Problem

Swap **x** and **y** without using a temporary.

```
x = x ^ y;  
y = x ^ y;  
x = x ^ y;
```

Example

x	10111101			
y	00101110			

No-Temp Swap

Problem

Swap **x** and **y** without using a temporary.

```
x = x ^ y;  
y = x ^ y;  
x = x ^ y;
```

Example

x	10111101	10010011		
y	00101110	00101110		

No-Temp Swap

Problem

Swap **x** and **y** without using a temporary.

```
x = x ^ y;  
y = x ^ y;  
x = x ^ y;
```

Example

x	10111101	10010011	10010011	
y	00101110	00101110	10111101	

No-Temp Swap

Problem

Swap **x** and **y** without using a temporary.

```
x = x ^ y;  
y = x ^ y;  
x = x ^ y;
```

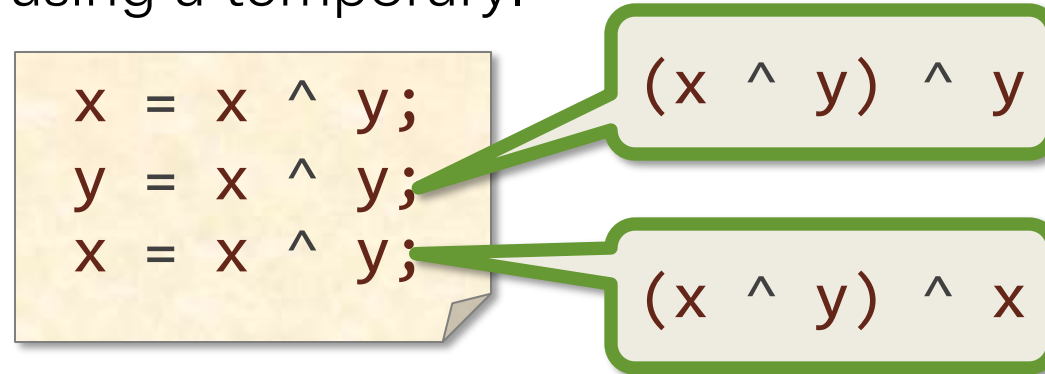
Example

x	10111101	10010011	10010011	00101110
y	00101110	00101110	10111101	10111101

No-Temp Swap

Problem

Swap **x** and **y** without using a temporary.



Example

x	10111101	10010011	10010011	00101110
y	00101110	00101110	10111101	10111101

Why it works

XOR is its own inverse:

$$(x \oplus y) \oplus y \Rightarrow x$$

x	y	$x \oplus y$	$(x \oplus y) \oplus y$
0	0	0	0
0	1	1	0
1	0	1	1
1	1	0	1

No-Temp Swap (Instant Replay)

Problem

Swap **x** and **y** without using a temporary.

```
x = x ^ y;  
y = x ^ y;  
x = x ^ y;
```

Example

x	10111101			
y	00101110			

Why it works

XOR is its own inverse:

$$(x \oplus y) \oplus y \Rightarrow x$$

x	y	$x \oplus y$	$(x \oplus y) \oplus y$
0	0	0	0
0	1	1	0
1	0	1	1
1	1	0	1

No-Temp Swap (Instant Replay)

Problem

Swap **x** and **y** without using a temporary.

Mask with **1**'s
where bits differ

```
x = x ^ y;  
y = x ^ y;  
x = x ^ y;
```

Example

x	10111101	10010011		
y	00101110	00101110		

Why it works

XOR is its own inverse:

$$(x \oplus y) \oplus y \Rightarrow x$$

x	y	$x \oplus y$	$(x \oplus y) \oplus y$
0	0	0	0
0	1	1	0
1	0	1	1
1	1	0	1

No-Temp Swap (Instant Replay)

Problem

Swap **x** and **y** without using a temporary.

Flip bits in **y** that
differ from **x**

```
x = x ^ y;  
y = x ^ y;  
x = x ^ y;
```

Example

x	10111101	10010011	10010011	
y	00101110	00101110	10111101	

Why it works

XOR is its own inverse:

$$(x \oplus y) \oplus y \Rightarrow x$$

x	y	$x \oplus y$	$(x \oplus y) \oplus y$
0	0	0	0
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No-Temp Swap (Instant Replay)

Problem

Swap **x** and **y** without using a temporary.

Flip bits in **x** that
differ from **y**

```
x = x ^ y;  
y = x ^ y;  
x = x ^ y;
```

Example

x	10111101	10010011	10010011	00101110
y	00101110	00101110	10111101	10111101

Why it works

XOR is its own inverse:

$$(x \oplus y) \oplus y \Rightarrow x$$

x	y	$x \oplus y$	$(x \oplus y) \oplus y$
0	0	0	0
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1	0	1	1
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No-Temp Swap (Instant Replay)

Problem

Swap **x** and **y** without using a temporary.

```
x = x ^ y;  
y = x ^ y;  
x = x ^ y;
```

Example

x	10111101	10010011	10010011	00101110
y	00101110	00101110	10111101	10111101

Why it works

XOR is its own inverse: $(x \oplus y) \oplus y \Rightarrow x$

Performance 📉

Poor at exploiting instruction-level parallelism (ILP).

AVOIDING UNPREDICTABLE CODE BRANCHES



Minimum of Two Integers

Problem

Find the minimum **r** of two integers **x** and **y**.

```
if (x < y)
    r = x;
else
    r = y;
```

or

```
r = (x < y) ? x : y;
```

Performance

A mispredicted branch empties the processor pipeline.

Caveat

The compiler is usually smart enough to optimize away the unpredictable branch, but maybe not.

No-Branch Minimum

Problem

Find the minimum of two integers **x** and **y** without using a branch:

```
y ^ ((x ^ y) & -(x < y));
```

Why it works

- The C language represents the Booleans **TRUE** and **FALSE** with the integers **1** and **0**, respectively.
- If $x < y$, then $-(x < y) = -1$, which is all 1's in two's complement representation. Therefore, we have $y ^ ((x ^ y) \& 1) = y ^ (x ^ y) = x$.
- If $x \geq y$, then $y ^ ((x ^ y) \& 0) = y ^ 0 = y$.

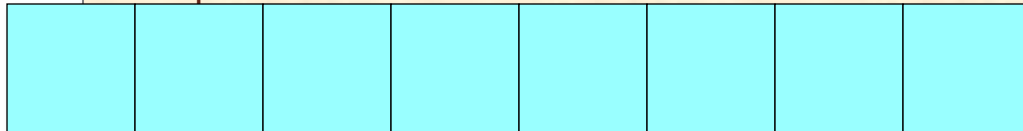
Merging Two Sorted Arrays

```
static void merge(int64_t * __restrict C,  
                  int64_t * __restrict A,  
                  int64_t * __restrict B,  
                  size_t na,  
                  size_t nb) {  
    while (na > 0 && nb > 0) {  
        if (*A <= *B) {  
            *C++ = *A++; na--;  
        } else {  
            *C++ = *B++; nb--;  
        }  
    }  
    while (na > 0) {  
        *C++ = *A++;  
        na--;  
    }  
    while (nb > 0) {  
        *C++ = *B++;  
        nb--;  
    }  
}
```

The **__restrict** keywords say that **A**, **B**, and **C** don't **alias**, meaning that they do not overlap in memory.

Merging Two Sorted Arrays

```
static void merge(int64_t * __restrict C,  
                  int64_t * __restrict A,  
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    while (na > 0 && nb > 0) {  
        if (*A <= *B) {  
            *C++ = *A++; na--;  
        } else {  
            *C++ = *B++; nb--;  
        }  
    }  
    while (na > 0) {  
        *C++ = *A++;  
        na--;  
    }  
    while (nb > 0) {  
        *C++ = *B++;  
        nb--;  
    }  
}
```



3	12	19	46
---	----	----	----

4	14	21	23
---	----	----	----

Branching

```
static void merge(long * __restrict C,  
                 long * __restrict A,  
                 long * __restrict B,  
                 size_t na,  
                 size_t nb) {  
4   while (na > 0 && nb > 0) {  
3   if (*A <= *B) {  
        *C++ = *A++; na--;  
    } else {  
        *C++ = *B++; nb--;  
    }  
2   while (na > 0) {  
        *C++ = *A++;  
        na--;  
    }  
1   while (nb > 0) {  
        *C++ = *B++;  
        nb--;  
    }  
}
```

Branch	Predictable?
1	Yes
2	Yes
3	No
4	Yes

Branchless

```
static void merge(int64_t * __restrict C,
                  int64_t * __restrict A,
                  int64_t * __restrict B,
                  size_t na,
                  size_t nb) {
    while (na > 0 && nb > 0) {
        long cmp = (*A <= *B);
        long min = *B ^ ((*B ^ *A) & (-cmp));
        *C++ = min;
        A += cmp; na -= cmp;
        B += !cmp; nb -= !cmp;
    }
    while (na > 0) {
        *C++ = *A++;
        na--;
    }
    while (nb > 0) {
        *C++ = *B++;
        nb--;
    }
}
```

On modern machines using **clang -O3**, the branchless version is usually slower than the branching version 👎 because modern compilers convert unpredictable branches into predictable ones using conditional-move hardware instructions.

Modular Addition

Problem

Compute $r = (x + y) \bmod n$, assuming that $0 \leq x < n$ and $0 \leq y < n$.

```
r = (x + y) % n;
```

Division is expensive.

```
z = x + y;  
r = (z < n) ? z : z - n;
```

An unpredictable branch is expensive.

```
z = x + y;  
r = z - (n & -(z >= n));
```

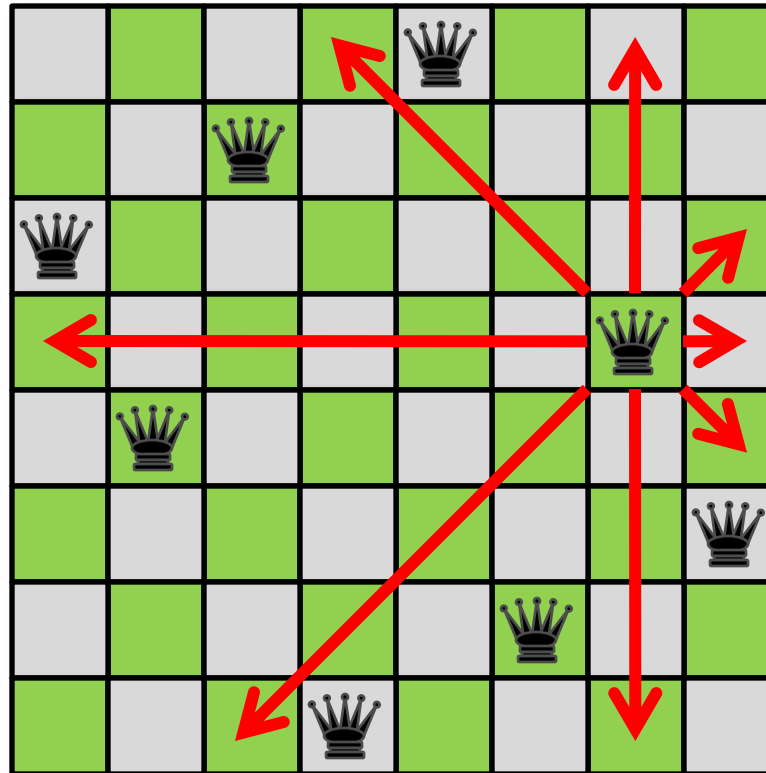
Same trick as minimum.

THE QUEENS PROBLEM



Queens Problem

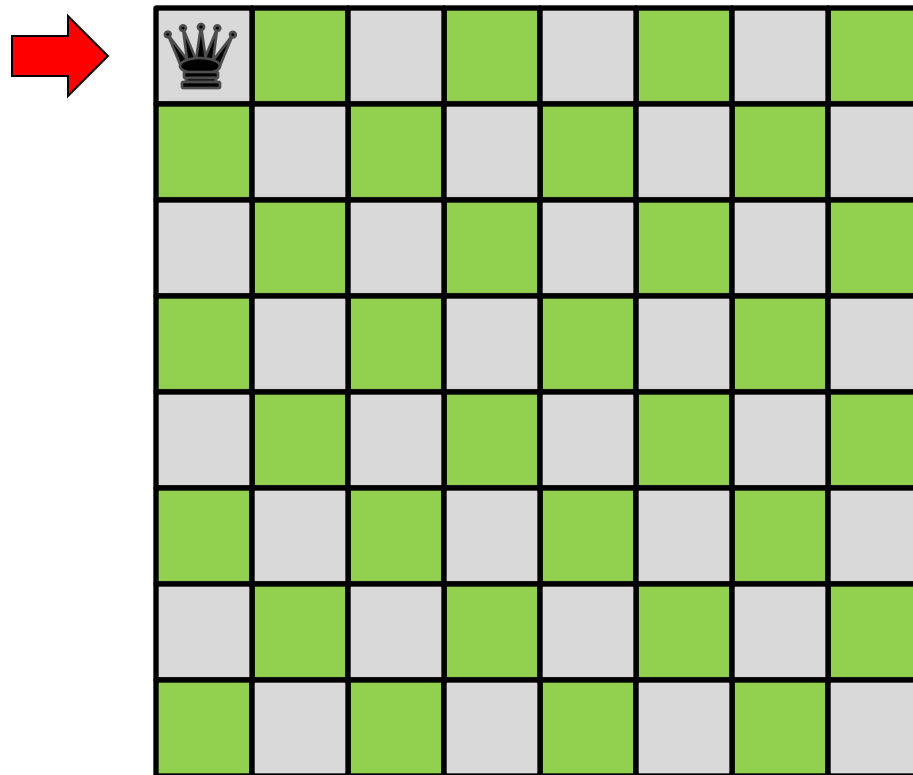
Place n Queens on an $n \times n$ chessboard so that no Queen attacks another, i.e., no two Queens in any row, column, or diagonal. Count the number of possible solutions.



Backtracking Search

Strategy

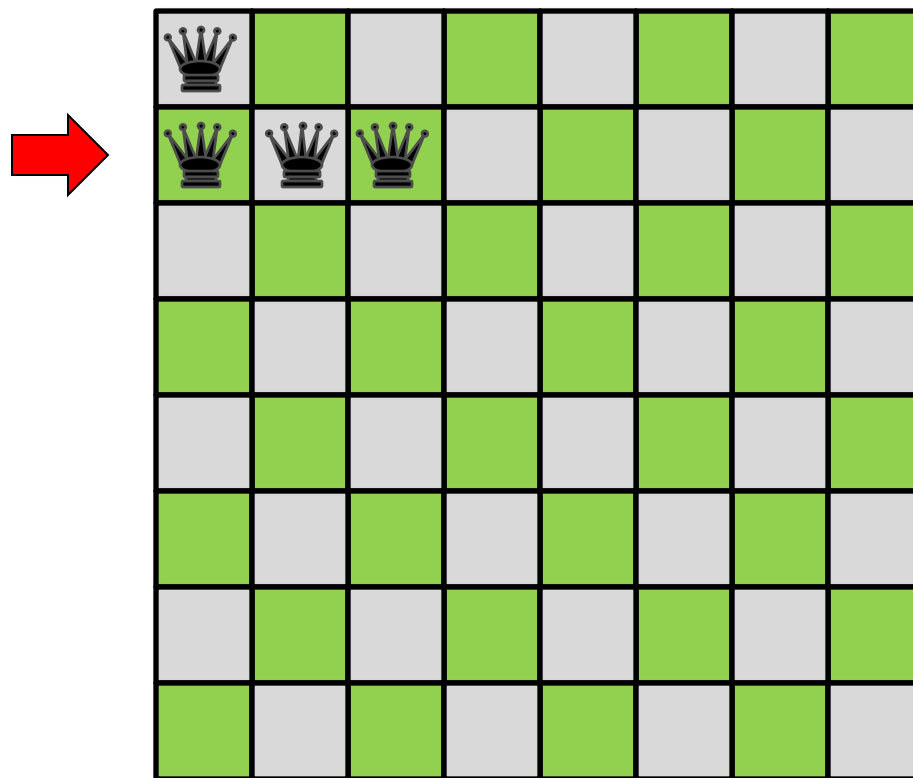
Try placing Queens row by row. If you can't place a Queen in a row, backtrack.



Backtracking Search

Strategy

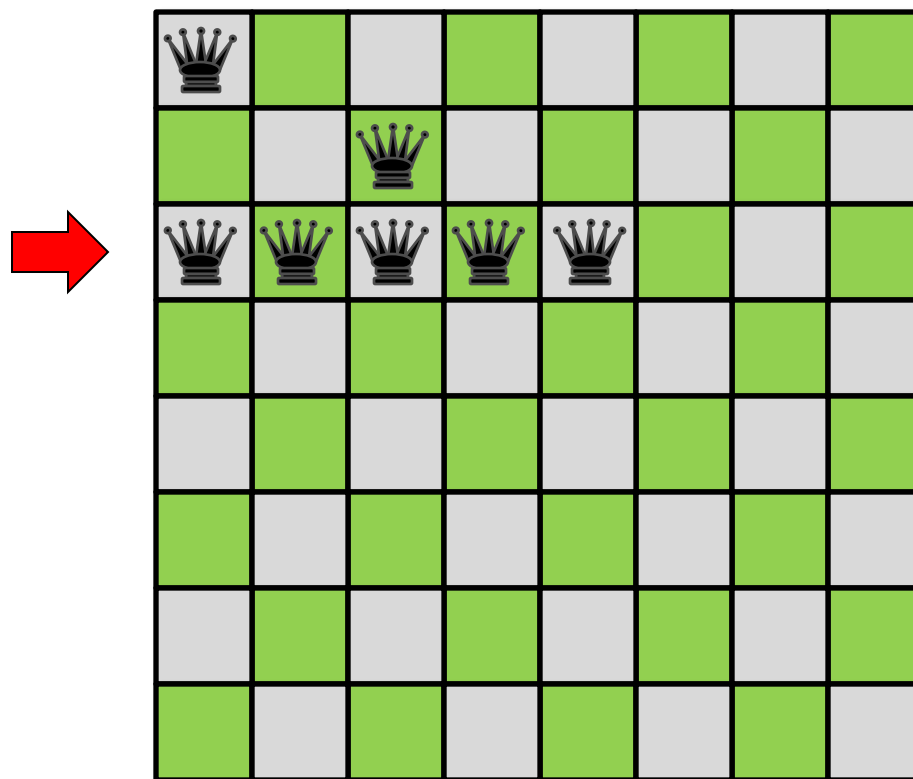
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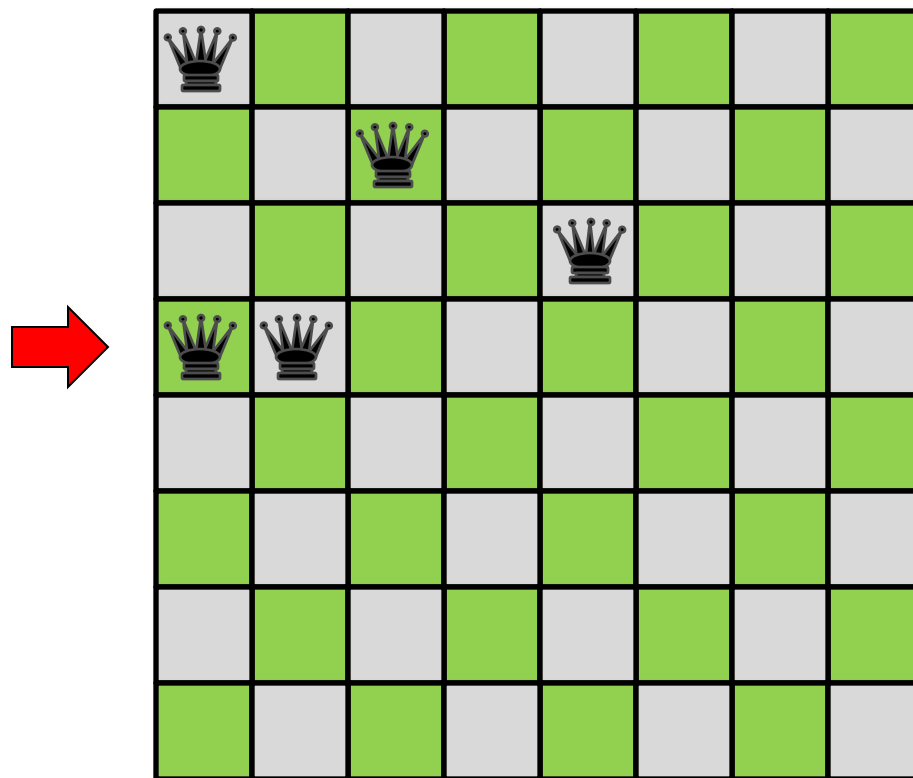
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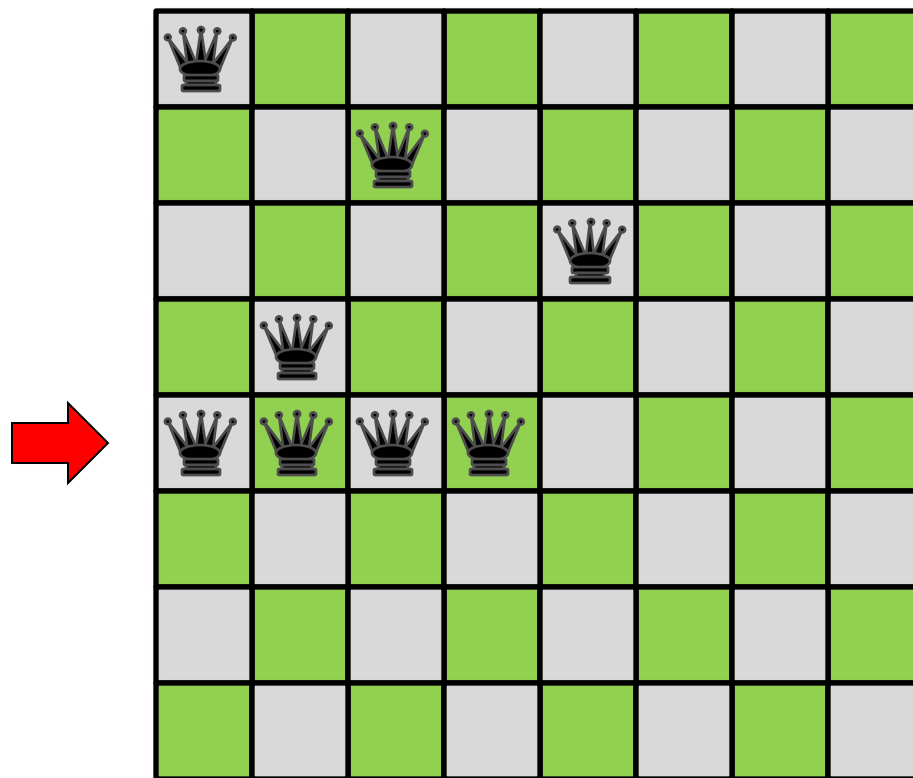
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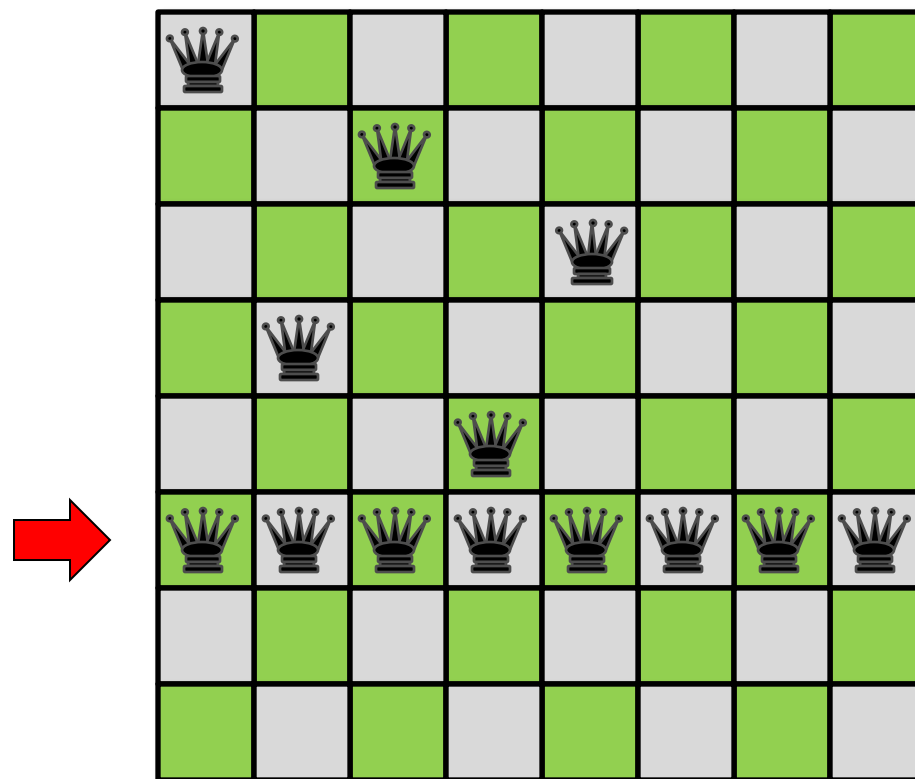
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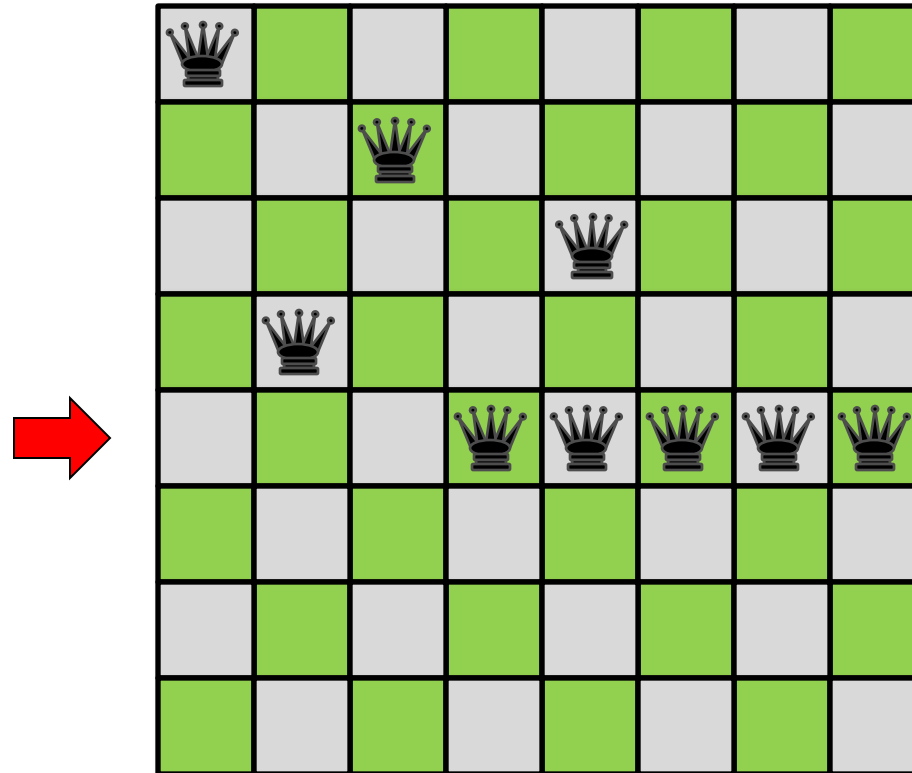


Backtrack!

Backtracking Search

Strategy

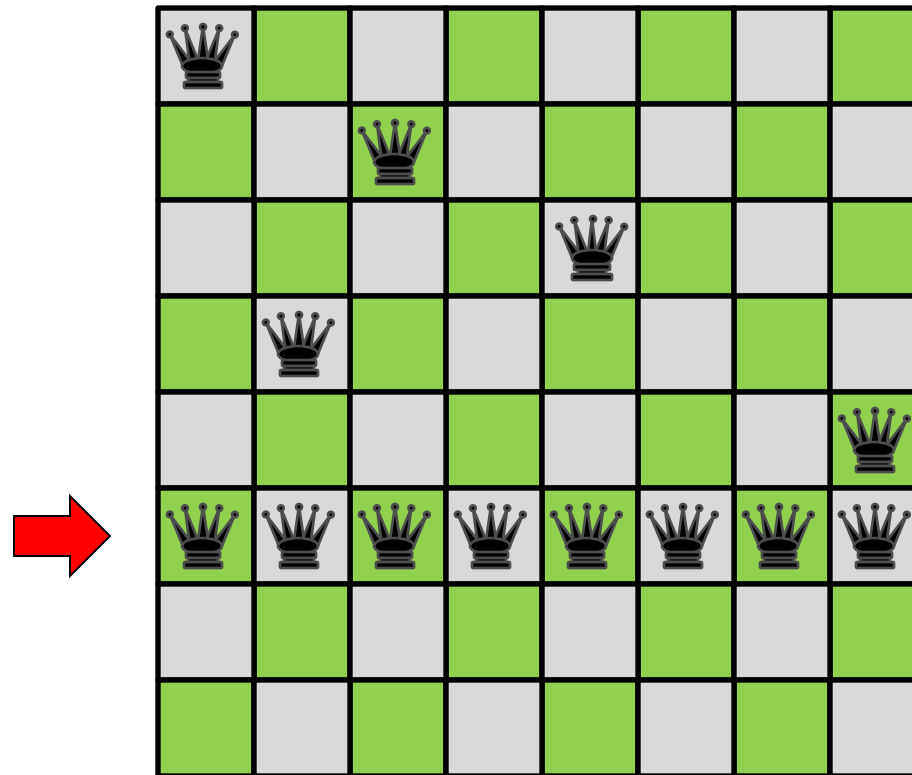
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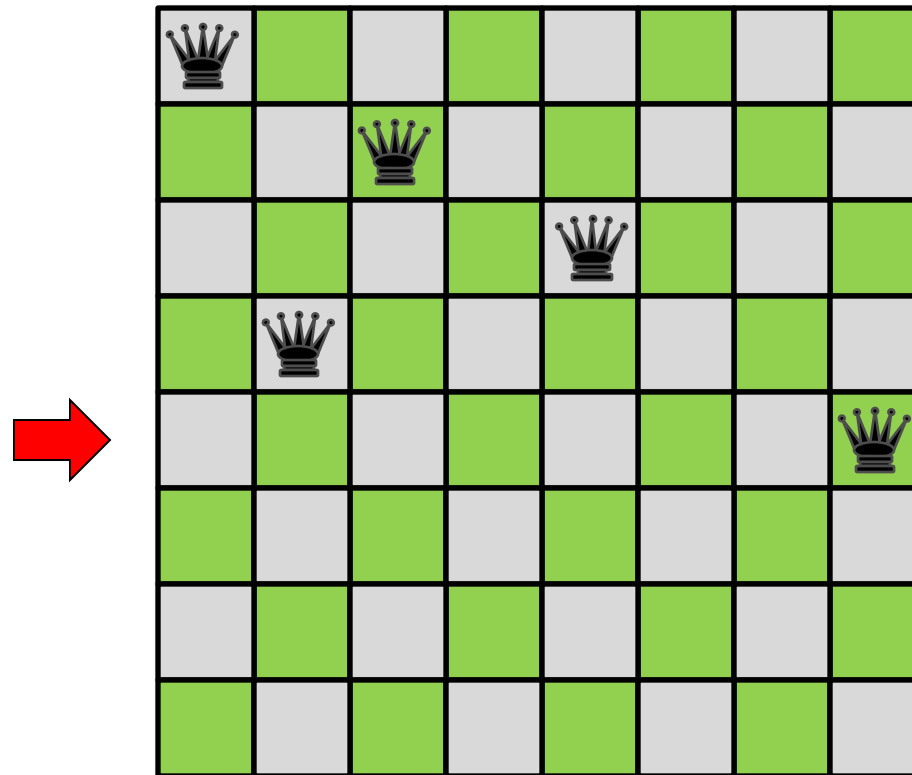


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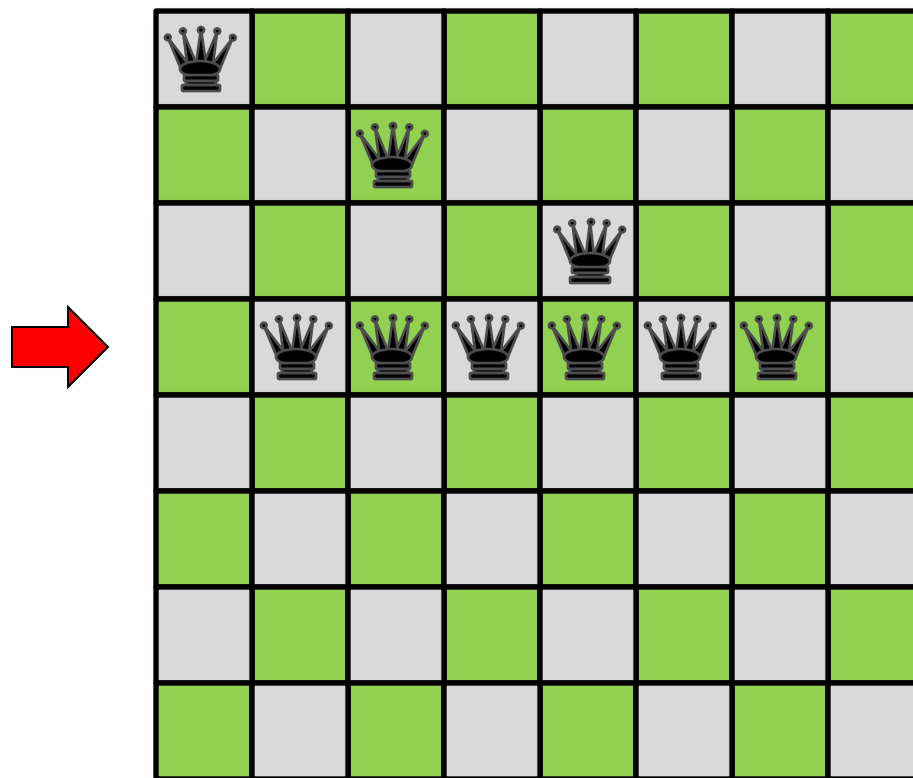


Backtrack!

Backtracking Search

Strategy

Try placing Queens row by row. If you can't place a Queen in a row, backtrack.



Board Representation

The backtrack search can be implemented as a simple recursive procedure, but how should the board be represented to facilitate Queen placement?

- array of n^2 bytes?
- array of n^2 bits?
- array of n bytes?
- a few bitvectors of size n .

Queens Code

Code inspired by Tony Lezard (1991)

```
int32_t
queens(uint32_t mask,
       uint32_t down,
       uint32_t left,
       uint32_t right) {
    int32_t possible, place;
    int32_t count = 0;
    if (down == mask) return 1;
    for (possible = ~(down | left | right) & mask;
         possible != 0;
         possible &= ~place) {
        place = possible & -possible;
        count += queens(mask,
                        down | place,
                        ((left | place) << 1) & mask,
                        (right | place) >> 1);
    }
    return count;
}
```

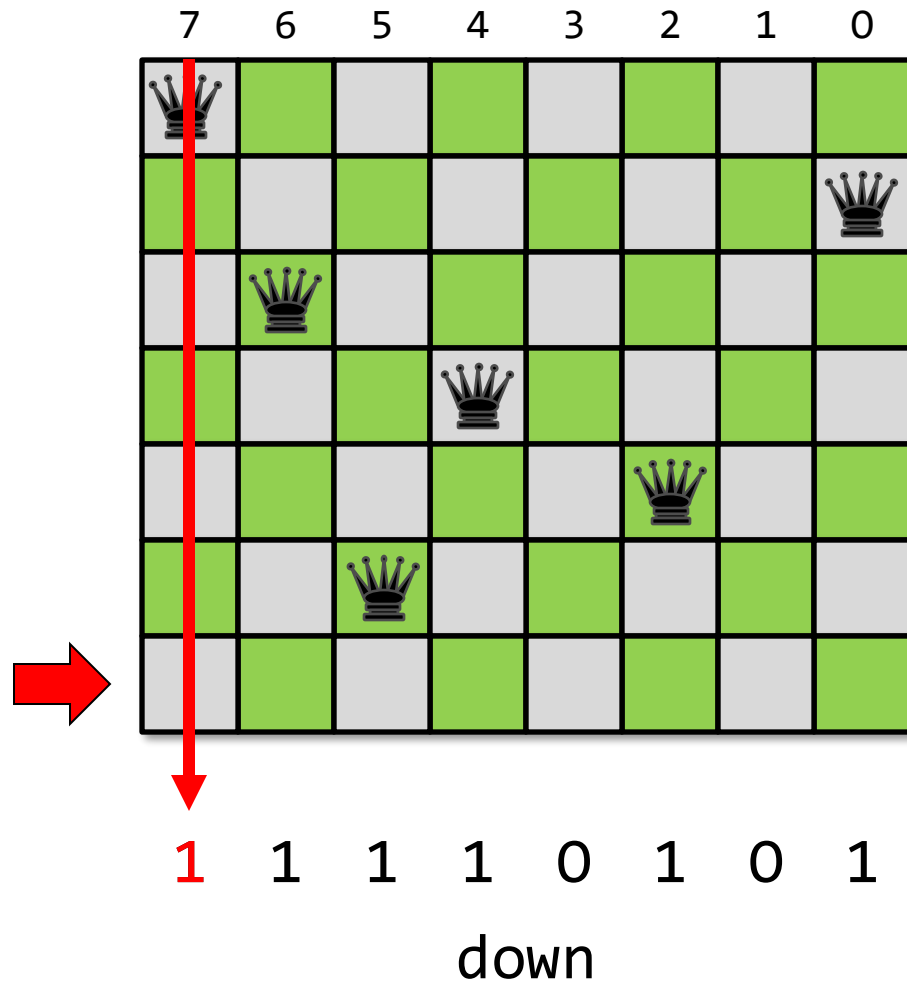
Root call

```
queens((1 << n)-1, 0, 0, 0));
```



Tony Lezard

Bitvector Representation

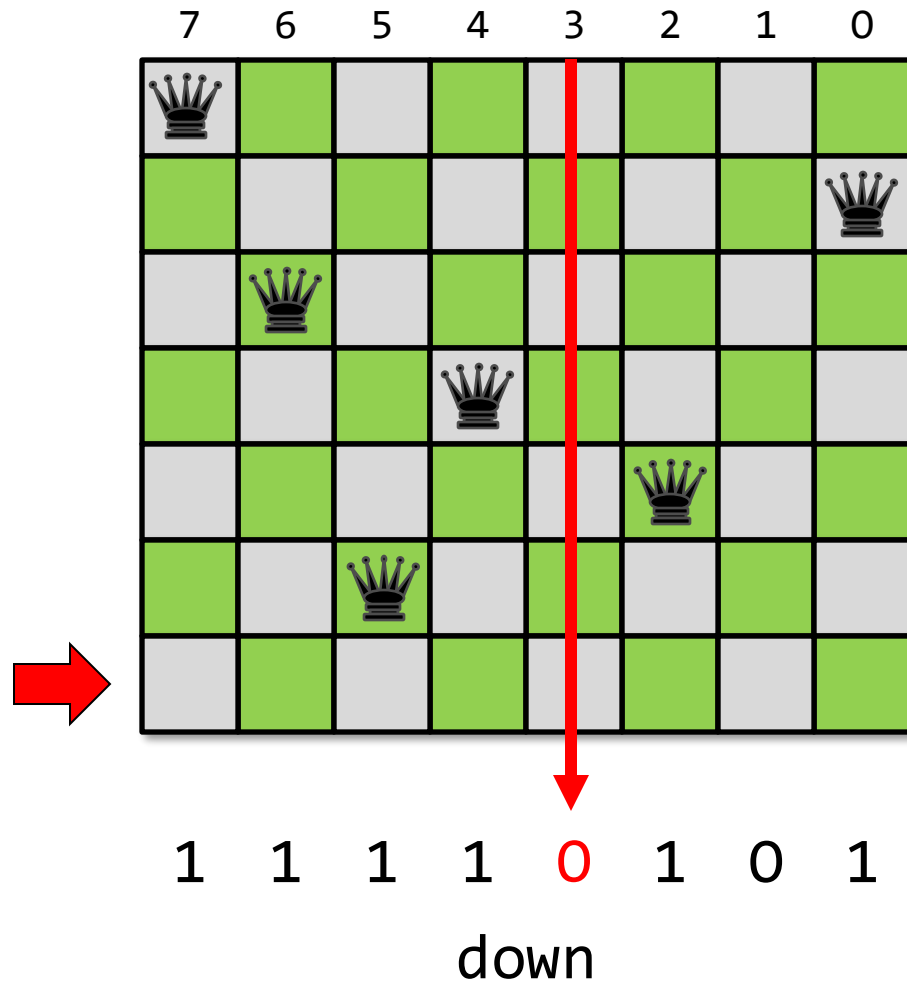


Placing a Queen in column **c**
is not safe if

down & **place** $\neq 0$

where **place** = $1 \ll c$.

Bitvector Representation

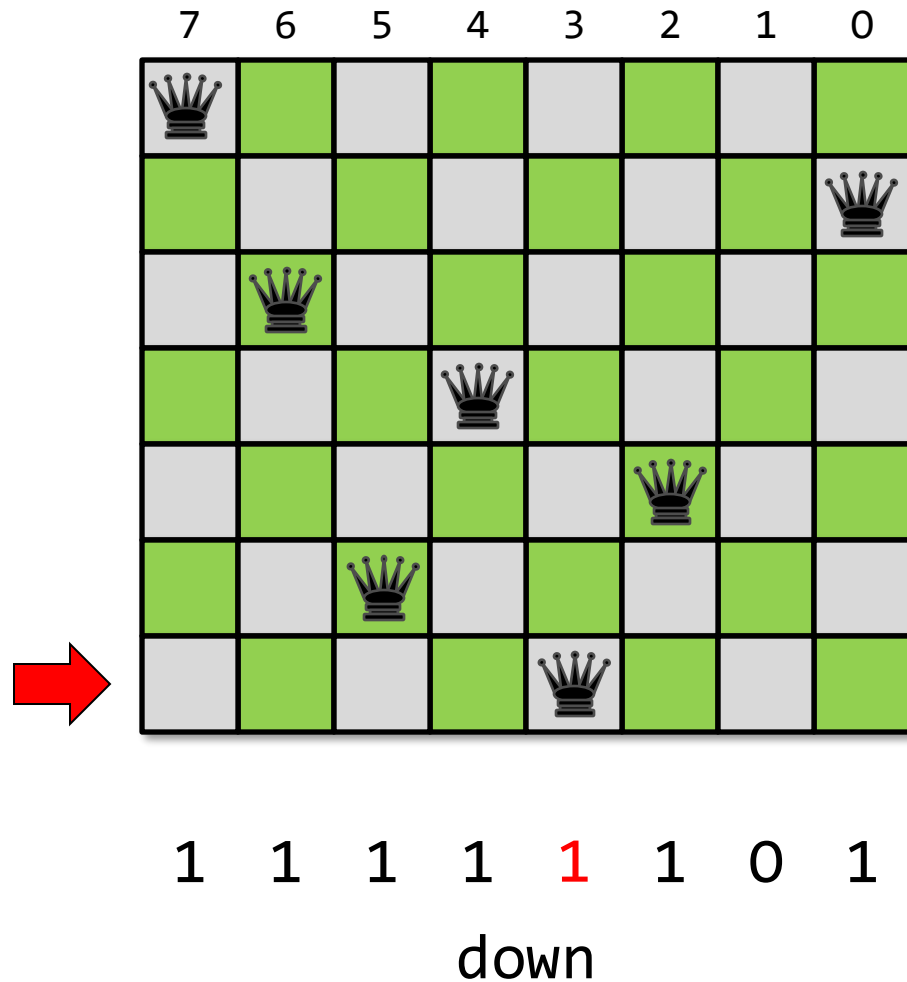


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Bitvector Representation



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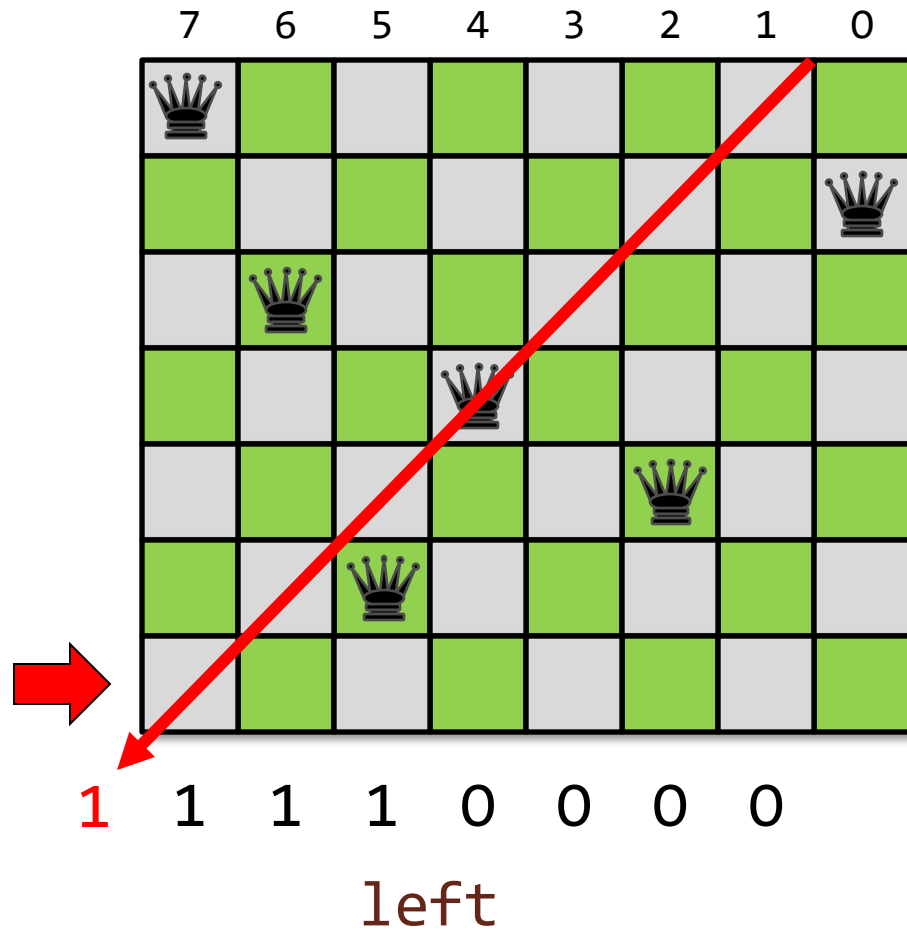
where **place** = $1 \ll c$.

If column **c** is safe, then update

down $\mid=$ **place**

for the next row.

Bitvector Representation

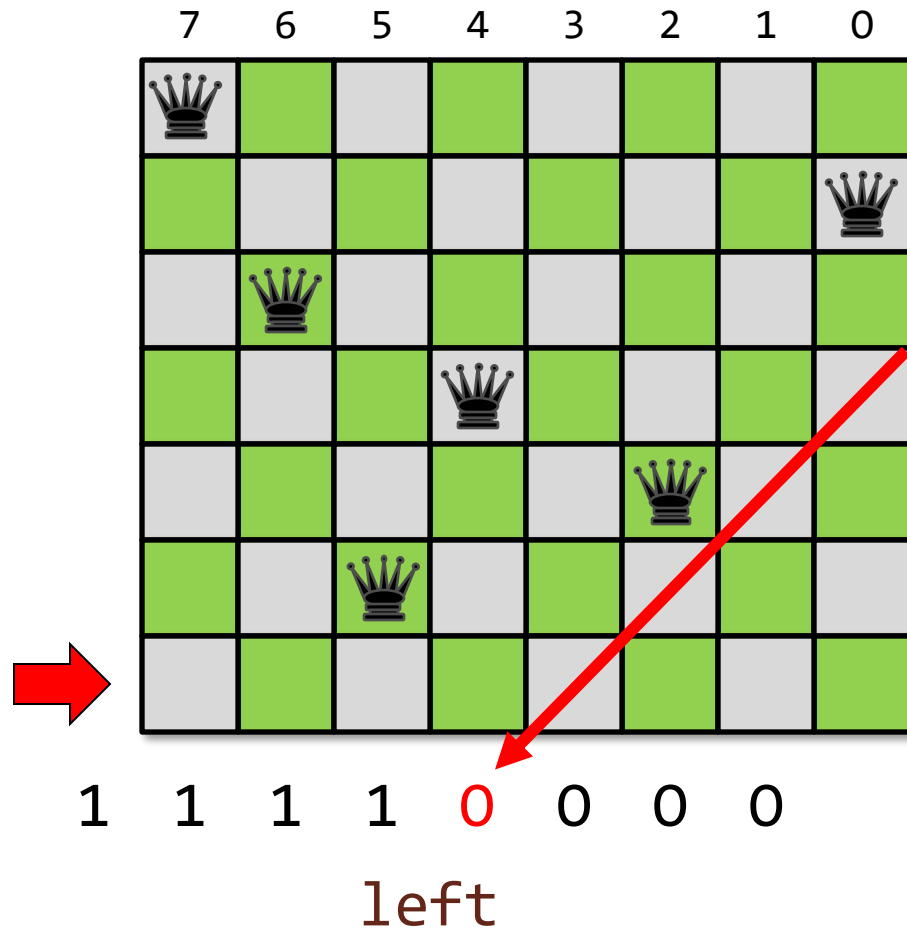


Placing a Queen in column **c**
is not safe if

left & **place** $\neq 0$

where **place** = $1 \ll c$.

Bitvector Representation

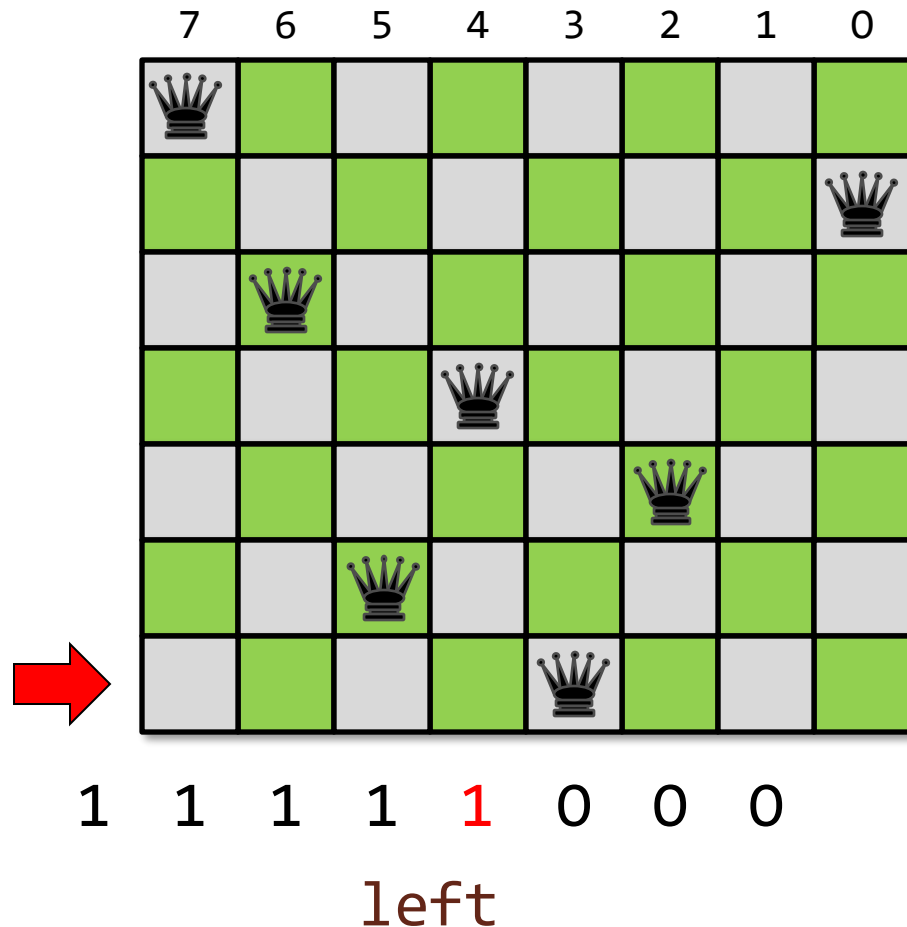


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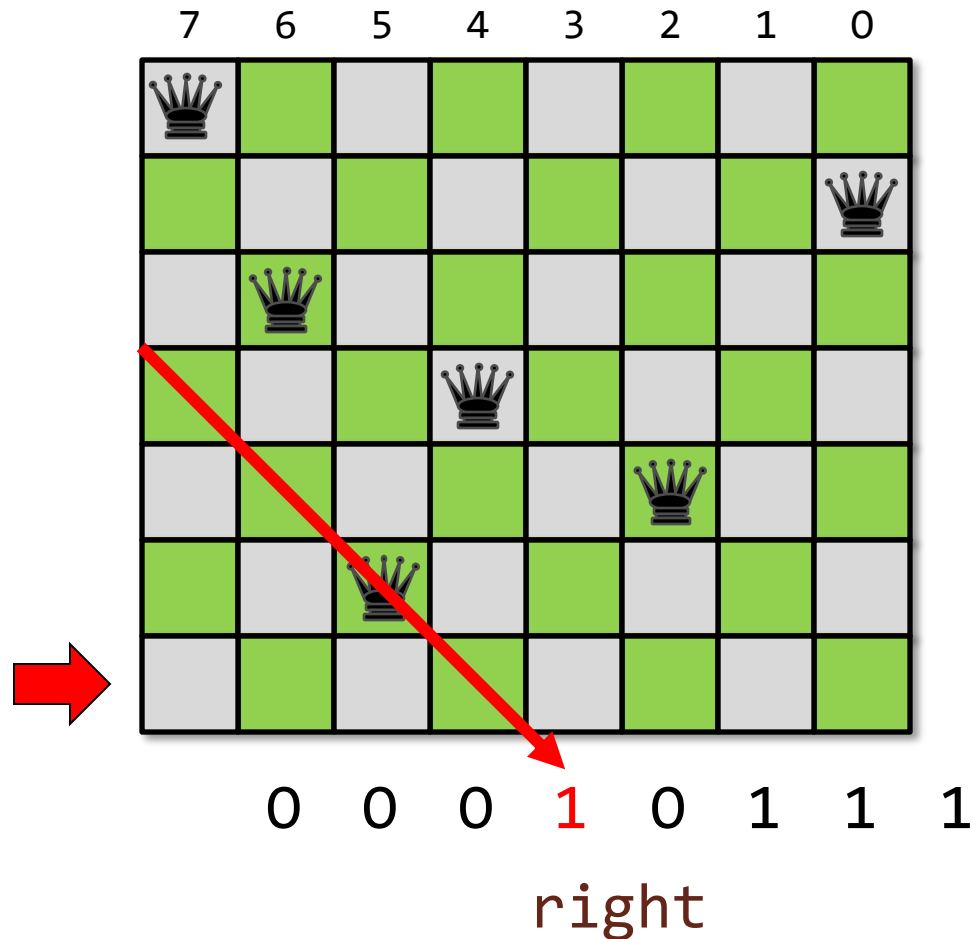
where **place** = $1 \ll c$.

If column **c** is safe, then update

left = $(\text{left} | \text{place}) \ll 1$

for the next row.

Bitvector Representation

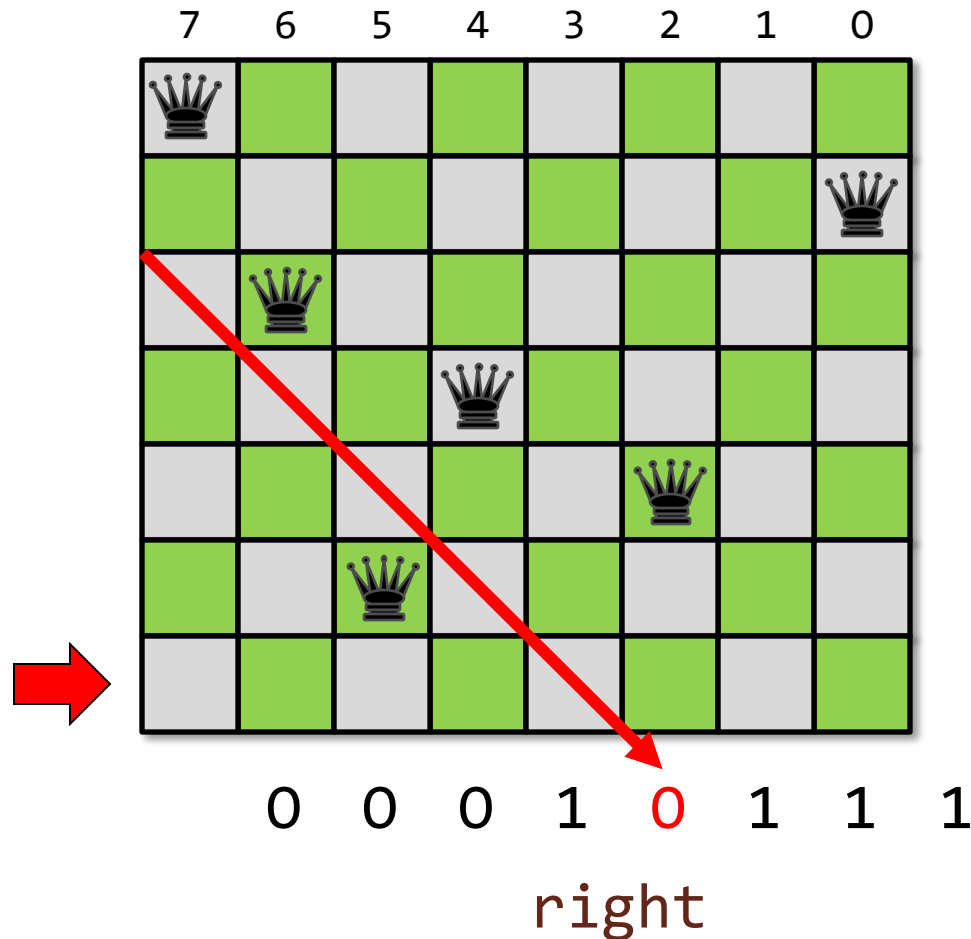


Placing a Queen in column **c**
is not safe if

right & **place** $\neq 0$

where **place** = $1 \ll c$.

Bitvector Representation

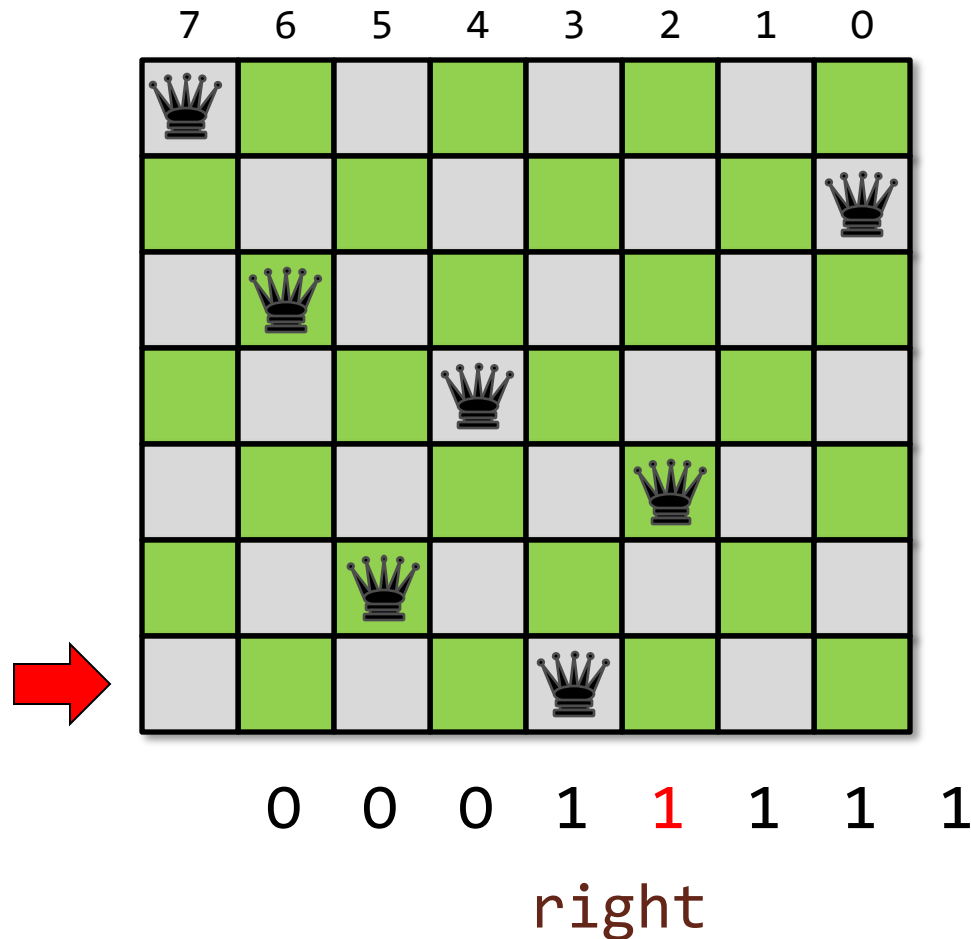


Placing a Queen in column **c**
is not safe if

right & **place** $\neq 0$

where **place** = $1 \ll c$.

Bitvector Representation



Placing a Queen in column `c` is not safe if

`right & place != 0`

where `place = 1 << c`.

If column `c` is safe, then update

`right = (right | place) << 1`

for the next row.

Queens Code

Code inspired by Tony Lezard (1991)

```
int32_t
queens(uint32_t mask,
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        count += queens(mask,
                        down | place,
                        ((left | place) << 1) & mask,
                        (right | place) >> 1);
    }
    return count;
}
```

Root call

```
queens((1 << n)-1, 0, 0, 0));
```



Tony Lezard

FINAL REMARKS



Further Reading

- Sean Eron Anderson, “Bit twiddling hacks,”
<http://graphics.stanford.edu/~seander/bithacks.html>,
2009.
- Donald E. Knuth, The Art of Computer Programming,
Volume 4A, Combinatorial Algorithms, Part 1, Addison–
Wesley, 2011, Section 7.1.3.
- <http://chessprogramming.wikispaces.com/>
- Henry S. Warren, Hacker’s Delight, Addison–Wesley,
2003.

And remember...

EVERY LITTLE BIT COUNTS!



APPENDIX A: BINARY REPRESENTATIONS



Unsigned-Integer Representation

Let $\mathbf{x} = \langle x_{w-1} x_{w-2} \dots x_0 \rangle$ be a w -bit computer word. The **unsigned integer** value stored in $\mathbf{x}$ is

$$x = \sum_{k=0}^{w-1} x_k 2^k .$$

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The prefix **0b** designates a Boolean constant.

For example, the **8**-bit word **0b01101010** represents the unsigned value **106** $= 2 + 8 + 32 + 64$.

Integer Representation

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The **signed integer** (**two's complement**) value stored in x is

$$x = \left(\sum_{k=0}^{w-2} x_k 2^k \right) - x_{w-1} 2^{w-1} .$$

For example, the **8-bit** word **0b10010110** represents the signed value **-106** $= 2 + 4 + 16 - 128$.

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$$x = \left(\sum_{k=0}^{w-2} x_k 2^k \right) - \boxed{x_{w-1}} 2^{w-1}.$$

sign bit

For example, the 8-bit word **0b10010110** represents the signed value **-106** $= 2 + 4 + 16 - 128$.

Two's Complement

We have $0b00\dots0 = 0$.

What is the value of $x = 0b11\dots1$?

$$\begin{aligned}x &= \left(\sum_{k=0}^{w-2} x_k 2^k \right) - x_{w-1} 2^{w-1} \\&= \left(\sum_{k=0}^{w-2} 2^k \right) - 2^{w-1} \\&= (2^{w-1} - 1) - 2^{w-1} \\&= -1.\end{aligned}$$

Complementary Relationship

Important identity

Since we have $\sim x + x = -1$, it follows that

$$\sim x + 1 = -x .$$

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Example

$$\begin{aligned} x &= 0b0001100000011100 \\ \sim x &= 0b1110011111100011 \\ -x &= 0b1110011111100100 \end{aligned}$$

Complementary Relationship

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Since we have $\sim x + x = -1$, it follows that

$$\sim x + 1 = -x .$$

Example

```
x = 0b0001100000011100
~x = 0b1110011111100011
-x = 0b1110011111100100
```

Binary and Hexadecimal

Decimal	Binary	Hex	Decimal	Binary	Hex
0	0000	0	8	1000	8
1	0001	1	9	1001	9
2	0010	2	10	1010	A
3	0011	3	11	1011	B
4	0100	4	12	1100	C
5	0101	5	13	1101	D
6	0110	6	14	1110	E
7	0111	7	15	1111	F

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To translate from hex to binary, translate each hex digit to its binary equivalent, and concatenate the bits.

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To translate from hex to binary, translate each hex digit to its binary equivalent, and concatenate the bits.

Example: 0xDEC1DE2CODE4FOOD is

1101111011000001110111100010110000001101111001001111000000001101
D E C 1 D E 2 C 0 D E 4 F 0 0 D

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D E C 1 D E 2 C 0 D E 4 F 0 0 D

APPENDIX B: ELEMENTARY BIT HACKS



C Bitwise Operators

Operator	Description
&	AND
	OR
^	XOR (exclusive OR)
~	NOT (one's complement)
<<	shift left
>>	shift right

Examples (8-bit word)

A = 0b10110011

B = 0b01101001

A & B = 0b00100001

~A = 0b01001100

A | B = 0b11111011

A >> 3 = 0b00010110

A ^ B = 0b11011010

A << 2 = 0b11001100

Set the kth Bit

Problem

Set k th bit in a word x to 1.

Idea

Shift and OR.

```
x | (1 << k);
```

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truth table for OR

x	y	x y
0	0	0
0	1	1
1	0	1
1	1	1

Example

$k = 7$

x	1011110101101101
$1 \ll k$	0000000010000000
$x (1 \ll k)$	1011110111101101

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1	0	1
1	1	1

```
x | (1 << k);
```

Example

$k = 7$

x	1011110101101101
1 << k	0000000010000000
x (1 << k)	1011110111101101

Clear the kth Bit

Problem

Clear the k th bit in a word x .

Idea

Shift, complement, and AND.

```
x & ~(1 << k);
```


Clear the kth Bit

Problem

Clear the k th bit in a word x .

Idea

Shift, complement, and AND.

```
x & ~(1 << k);
```

truth table for AND

x	y	x & y
0	0	0
0	1	0
1	0	0
1	1	1

Example

$k = 7$

x	1011110111101101
$1 \ll k$	0000000010000000
$\sim(1 \ll k)$	1111111101111111
$x \& \sim(1 \ll k)$	1011110101101101

Clear the kth Bit

Problem

Clear the k th bit in a word x .

Idea

Shift, complement, and AND.

```
x & ~(1 << k);
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truth table for AND

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Example

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1	1	1

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$k = 7$

x	1011110111101101
$1 \ll k$	0000000010000000
$\sim(1 \ll k)$	1111111101111111
$x \& \sim(1 \ll k)$	1011110101101101

Toggle the kth Bit

Problem

Flip the k th bit in a word x .

Idea

Shift and XOR.

```
x ^ (1 << k);
```

Toggle the kth Bit

Problem

Flip the k th bit in a word x .

Idea

Shift and XOR.

truth table for XOR

x	y	$x \oplus y$
0	0	0
0	1	1
1	0	1
1	1	0

```
x ^ (1 << k);
```

Example (0 $\rightarrow$ 1)

$k = 7$

x	1011110101101101
$1 \ll k$	0000000010000000
$x \oplus (1 \ll k)$	1011110111101101

Toggle the kth Bit

Problem

Flip the k th bit in a word x .

Idea

Shift and XOR.

truth table for XOR

x	y	$x \wedge y$
0	0	0
0	1	1
1	0	1
1	1	0

```
x ^ (1 << k);
```

Example (0 $\rightarrow$ 1)

$k = 7$

x	1011110101101101
$1 \ll k$	0000000010000000
$x \wedge (1 \ll k)$	1011110111101101

Toggle the kth Bit

Problem

Flip the k th bit in a word x .

Idea

Shift and XOR.

```
x ^ (1 << k);
```

truth table for XOR

x	y	$x \wedge y$
0	0	0
0	1	1
1	0	1
1	1	0

Example (0 $\rightarrow$ 1)

$k = 7$

x	1011110101101101
$1 \ll k$	0000000010000000
$x \wedge (1 \ll k)$	1011110111101101

Toggle the kth Bit

Problem

Flip the k th bit in a word x .

Idea

Shift and XOR.

```
x ^ (1 << k);
```

truth table for XOR

x	y	$x \wedge y$
0	0	0
0	1	1
1	0	1
1	1	0

Example (1 $\rightarrow$ 0)

$k = 7$

x	1011110111101101
$1 \ll k$	0000000010000000
$x \wedge (1 \ll k)$	1011110101101101

Extract a Bit Field

Problem

Extract a bit field from a word x .

Idea

Mask and shift.

```
(x & mask) >> shift;
```

Extract a Bit Field

Problem

Extract a bit field from a word x .

Idea

Mask and shift.

```
(x & mask) >> shift;
```

Example

shift = 7

x	1011110101101101
mask	0000011110000000
x & mask	0000010100000000
(x & mask) >> shift	0000000000001010

Set a Bit Field

Problem

Set a bit field in a word x to a value y .

Idea

Invert mask to clear, and OR the shifted value.

```
(x & ~mask) | (y << shift);
```

Set a Bit Field

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Idea

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```
(x & ~mask) | (y << shift);
```

Example

$\text{shift} = 7$

x	1011110101101101
y	0000000000000011
mask	0000011110000000
$x \& \sim\text{mask}$	1011100001101101
$y \ll \text{shift}$	0000000110000000
$(x \& \sim\text{mask}) (y \ll \text{shift})$	1011100111101101

Set a Bit Field Dangerously

Problem

Set a bit field in a word x to a value y .

Idea

Invert mask to clear, and OR the shifted value.

```
(x & ~mask) | (y << shift);
```

Dangerous example

$\text{shift} = 7$

x	1000110101101101
y	0000000000100011
mask	0000011110000000
$x \& \sim\text{mask}$	1000100001101101
$y \ll \text{shift}$	0001000110000000
$(x \& \sim\text{mask}) (y \ll \text{shift})$	1001100111101101

Set a Bit Field Safely

Problem

Set a bit field in a word x to a value y safely.

Idea

Invert mask to clear, and OR the masked shifted value.

```
(x & ~mask) | ((y << shift) & mask);
```

Dangerous example (no longer)

shift = 7

x	1000110101101101
y	0000000000100011
mask	0000011110000000
x & ~mask	1000100001101101
((y << shift) & mask)	0000000110000000
(x & ~mask) ((y << shift) & mask)	1000100111101101